

Why Enforce? Police Discretion Under Non-Prosecution Policies

Nat Rubin

October 8, 2026

Introduction

In the United States, discourse around crime tends to center serious violent crime. However, misdemeanors (non-felony criminal offenses which are generally non-violent and punished by less than a year of incarceration) outnumber felonies in the court system at a rate of around three-to-one (Hahn et al., 2024). The policing of misdemeanors also differs from the policing of felonies in the amount of discretion placed in the hands of individual police officers. In comparison to felonies, where police are obligated to respond to calls for service from the victim or witness, many misdemeanor arrests are initiated by the officer themselves in response to an observed violation. As American criminal law covers an expansive number of behaviors (Luna, 2004), an officer on patrol may witness a huge number of technical violations of criminal law or code. Unable to address all of them, individual officers must decide on the appropriate level of enforcement of these low-level offenses.

How do police officers make these discretionary enforcement decisions? Specifically, do they care if arrests they make end up in prosecution and adjudicated punishment?¹ Different models of policing factor punishment differently into discretionary police decisions. The “legalistic” policing model views the police as impartial enforcers of criminal law and “assumes that the function of the law is to punish...those who depart from the behavior required by the law” (Wilson, 1978, p.188). In this model, officers “take into account consequences that are general, remote, and impersonal” (p. 183). The contrasting “watchman” model of policing emphasizes order maintenance over law enforcement, “judging the seriousness of infractions less by what the law says about them than by their immediate and personal consequences” (p. 141). Under a watchman model, discretionary arrests are a problem-solving tool for the here-and-now. This utility persists regardless of changes in downstream punishment. Between these two models, legalistic police should be more responsive to changes in prosecutorial policy than watchman police.

¹Arrest alone can be a form of punishment, with negative impacts on employment and access to services (Jain, 2015). For the sake of this argument, however, I focus on punishment through the courts, which I will refer to as “punishment” for brevity.

To better understand discretionary arrest decisions, I analyze if street-level enforcement changes when the punishments for low-level offenses are radically altered. Specifically, I leverage the adoption of policies that ended prosecution of a number of low-level offenses in parts of New York City. In 2020 and 2022, the District Attorneys (DAs) of the Bronx and Manhattan publicly announced they would not prosecute certain quality-of-life offenses that tend to rely heavily on officer discretion. Using a staggered adoption design with synthetic controls, I examine whether officers in precincts covered by these policies made fewer arrests and issued fewer criminal court summons for offenses that would no longer be prosecuted. Critically, I am able to isolate the effect of changes in prosecutorial policy by comparing treated and untreated precincts that share important institutional factors, including police leadership and unions, a mayor’s office, and state and city law. The results from the staggered adoption models suggest that the vast majority of enforcement actions continued in the absence of prosecution. While the effect of changing punishments varies greatly between precincts, this variation is not correlated with precinct characteristics. Ongoing enforcement of non-prosecuted misdemeanors in treated precincts reveals that arrests offer utility to the police beyond the simple deterrence effect of punishment.

Policing and Prosecuting Misdemeanors

While misdemeanors tend to be minor offenses, the impact of misdemeanor enforcement on suspected violators can be wide-reaching. Even the most minor criminal-legal contacts have negative effects on the quality of citizenship (Weaver & Lerman, 2010; White, 2022). At its most minor, an arrest may mean missed work or the need for emergency childcare. At its most serious, being taken into custody exposes suspects to violence up to and including death (University of Illinois Chicago Law Enforcement Epidemiology Project, n.d.). Arrests, even if they do not result in a criminal record, can have negative consequences on the ability to obtain government services (Jain, 2015). After being arrested or issued a criminal court summons, suspects are funneled into the misdemeanor justice system, an assembly-line process that incentivizes guilty pleas regardless of guilt and often fails to meet constitutional standards of due process (Natapoff, 2011). Defendants facing misdemeanor charges must take time off work or school to attend court, may owe fines and fees to the court, and are subject to future surveillance (Kohler-Hausmann, 2019). Following the inevitable guilty plea, defendants develop a criminal record, which impacts future employment prospects and is predictive of future criminal-legal system involvement (Agan et al., 2023). Unsurprisingly, these effects are not distributed equally. Discretionary policing for low-level misdemeanors is concentrated in race-class subjugated neighborhoods, and disproportionately involves Black and Hispanic individuals (Fagan & Davies, 2000;

Gelman et al., 2007; Soss & Weaver, 2017). These racial disparities in misdemeanor policing persist into the misdemeanor justice system as well (Stevenson & Mayson, 2018).

The American criminal-legal system is organized horizontally, with distinct bureaucracies (police, prosecutor, judiciary, corrections, probation) that are connected but independently run (Damaska, 1986). Different models of policing view police as more or less connected to other bureaucracies. The legalistic model incorporates police as part of the broader criminal justice system, linking arrests to prosecution and punishment in the courts (Kelling, 1996; Wilson, 1978). In this system, the bureaucracies work together to punish violations of criminal law. If this is the case, then police work should reflect downstream outcomes. This systemic view is intuitive, and is the model we draw on when we describe police as “law enforcement”.

However, under the watchman model, there can be a variety of motivations to make arrests even if punishment is unlikely. Arrests on minor charges are used to physically move individuals around in a patrol area, or create conditions for a search that may turn up drugs or weapons (Department of Justice, 2016; Moskos, 2009). In addition, with the shift towards COMSTAT-style management, minor arrests are a reliable way for officers to demonstrate their effort to superiors (Baltimore City Fraternal Order of Police, 2012; Eckhouse, 2022). Officers may face pressure to generate a certain number of stops and arrests, and use discretionary misdemeanors to boost their numbers (ACLU of Maryland, 2006; Moskos, 2009; Ponce de Leon & Rizzotti, 2024; Rayman, 2010). At the organizational level, believers in Broken Windows theory support enforcement of minor offenses not for the eventual punishment, but because ending “disorder” through arrests prevents major crime (Kelling, Wilson, et al., 1982). The police may feel pressure from community groups and businesses to stop disruptive behavior for its own sake (Vitale, 2008). Further, misdemeanor policing may be less about punishing criminals than the enforcement of racialized spatial boundaries and ideas of social order (Bass, 2001; Laniyonu, 2018; Sharp, 2014).

Anecdotal evidence suggests that some enforcement activity continues in the face of informal deceleration policies. Histories of the NYPD’s Stop, Question, and Frisk (SQF) program have shown that SQF stops were made in large numbers despite the majority of cases resulting in dismissals (Bellin, 2019). In Baltimore, police officers continued to make arrests for disorderly conduct and failure to obey, despite superiors and prosecutors dismissing one-fifth to one-quarter of these cases (Department of Justice, 2016). However, in neither case was the policy formalized and announced publicly by the prosecutors’ office. In addition, these dynamics were observed at equilibrium — it is not possible to say if enforcement behavior would have changed if the informal policies changed.

Sometimes, police make public statements that they will enforce the laws on the books regardless of changes in prosecution. For example, when the Jackson County, Missouri prosecutor announced

that her office would no longer prosecute marijuana possession, local police insisted that they “foresee no changes on our end” (LaFlore, 2018). In other places, however, police insist that changes in how cases are handled by prosecutors leave their hands tied. In San Francisco, officers reportedly told individuals who had called for service that there was nothing they could do in response to their complaint, explicitly blaming progressive DA Chesa Boudin’s non-prosecution policy (Kohler, 2023). It remains unclear whether these statements are political grandstanding or reflective of actual police policy on the ground.

Some have suggested that prosecutors can reduce the broad and discriminatory reach of misdemeanor policing (Natapoff, 2023). As the mediator between police and courts, prosecutors effectively impose a kind of agenda control over the courts, deciding which cases are prosecuted and on what charges (Sklansky, 2016). In theory, that means police may alter their own behavior in the shadow of prosecutors’ charging preferences (Clark, 2025). This has been taken up by reform-oriented lead prosecutors, many of whom have instituted non-prosecution (also known as categorical declination) policies in their offices. While prosecutors always have the discretion to choose to prosecute or not prosecute individual cases, offices that adopt these policies pre-commit to not prosecuting cases where the primary charge is one on a specific list of offenses. The exact offenses may vary from office to office, and some DAs may preserve their right to prosecute offenses in extraordinary circumstances (often if violence was involved), but these policies generally target low-level misdemeanors that rely on discretionary enforcement. The theory behind categorical declination policies is that police will adjust their efforts to match the offenses that prosecutors will bring to trial, shifting away from policing of discretionary misdemeanors and towards more serious public safety priorities. Some DAs are also explicit about wanting to reduce the racial disparities associated with misdemeanor policing (Vera Institute of Justice, 2021). These policies attempt to change police behavior based on the premise that police won’t “waste” effort on arrests that will not result in indictments. In this way, these policies serve as a test of enforcement motivations. If the outcomes of cases after arrest are important to enforcement decisions, then enforcement for offenses covered by non-prosecution policies should fall. If enforcement is motivated by other factors, then the policies should not influence the level of enforcement.

Cops and Courts in New York City

While New York City is comprised of five boroughs, it is served by a single municipal police force. The New York Police Department (NYPD) is divided geographically into 78 precincts, each within the boundaries of one of the five boroughs (the Bronx, Brooklyn, Manhattan, Queens, and Staten

Island).² Each precinct is further subdivided into sectors, patrol areas which “correspond, as much as possible, with the boundaries of actual established neighborhoods” (New York Police Department, n.d.). Precincts are headed by captains, who are under the command of the Police Commissioner, who is appointed by the mayor. The NYPD has a controversial history concerning discretionary enforcement, particularly concerning the Stop, Question, and Frisk program. Since the program’s introduction in 2003, multiple court rulings have found that discretionary SQF stops disproportionately and unconstitutionally target young Black and Hispanic men (*Floyd v. City of New York*, *Ligon v. City of New York*, *Davis v. City of New York*).

Unlike the centralized police department, prosecution in New York City is decentralized. Each borough has its own DA office, with a separately elected head prosecutor making policy about how to handle cases originating in their county. The fragmentation of prosecution between the boroughs offers an opportunity to compare the outcomes of different prosecutorial policies operating in the same political context (mayor, police force, and criminal laws). In recent years, two of the five New York City prosecutors have instituted non-prosecution policies, allowing comparison of the impact of such policies on police behavior between boroughs. In January 2020, at the beginning of her second term as Bronx DA, Darcel Clark released a policy agenda titled, “A Safer Bronx Through Fair Justice.” The policy agenda includes a variety of progressive prosecution policies including diversion programs, reforms to plea bargaining, and a non-prosecution policy for a variety of misdemeanors. Two years later, in Manhattan, New York County DA Alvin Bragg released a “Day One Memo” detailing his own policies for his first term in office, which also featured a list of misdemeanors his office would decline to prosecute. The two policies are similar in spirit, generally targeting offenses allowing a high degree of police discretion, though the exact areas of the criminal code identified vary. Table 1 lists the offenses identified in each office’s policy. These policies were relevant to a significant portion of NYPD arrest activity in their respective boroughs. In the Bronx, the misdemeanors identified in the Clark policy constituted approximately 12% of the misdemeanor arrests and criminal court summons in the five years before the policy was enacted. In Manhattan, the offenses targeted by the Bragg policy constituted approximately 6% of arrests and summons in the five years before the policy was enacted.

While the two borough’s policies were similar, they received different receptions. Though Alvin Bragg campaigned on a progressive platform, the specifics of his policy caught even members of his own office by surprise (Erica Orden, 2022). In contrast, Darcel Clark’s policy in the Bronx was developed internally in the months leading up to the public announcement in January 2020 (Bronx DA’s Office,

²Each borough is also its own county, not always with the same name (eg. Manhattan is New York County and Brooklyn is Kings County). As the borough names are more commonly used than county names, I will use the language of boroughs going forward.

Table 1: Offenses Targeted by NYC-area Non-Prosecution Policies

Both the Bronx and Manhattan	Bronx Only	Manhattan Only
Trespass (PL § 140.05)	Criminally Possessing a Hypodermic Instrument (PL § 220.45)	Criminal Trespass in the Second Degree (PL § 140.15)
Criminal Trespass in the Third Degree (PL § 140.10)	Loitering for Prostitution (PL § 240.37)	Prostitution (PL § 230.00)
Fare Evasion (PL § 165.15(3))	Unlawful Assembly (PL § 240.10)	Resisting Arrest (PL § 205.30)
Disorderly Conduct (PL § 240.20)	Criminal Possession of Marijuana in the Fourth Degree (PL § 221.15)	Obstructing Governmental Administration in the Second Degree (PL § 195.05)
Possession of a Knife (NYC Administrative Code 10-133)		Criminal Possession/Sale of Marijuana in the Third Degree (PL § 222.30, 222.50)
(Aggravated) Operation of a Vehicle Without a License (VTL § 509, 511)		Adultery & Obscenity (PL § 255.17 & PL § 235.00)
Other non-criminal offenses*		

*Includes all non-criminal violations not accompanied by a misdemeanor or felony. An exhaustive list of these violations is not provided. Includes disorderly conduct, possession of a knife, and operation of a vehicle without a license. For the Manhattan-only analysis, I include summons for loitering (PL § 240.35) and harassment in the second degree (PL § 240.26) under the category of “other non-criminal offenses”.

2026). DA Clark’s policy in the Bronx was also announced without much pushback from NYPD officials or the police unions. While the refusal to prosecute low-level misdemeanors, and high rates of dismissals in general, has received negative coverage in conservative news sources, the pushback on the Bronx policy received was significantly less than DA Bragg’s policy in Manhattan (Golding, 2021; Post Editorial Board, 2025). Some in the law enforcement world accused Bragg of encouraging crime. The head of the Detective’s Endowment Association said Bragg’s policy “gives criminals the roadmap to freedom from prosecution and control of our streets,” while a police supervisor claim it would “lead to more young lives lost to gang violence and innocent people being hurt” (Celona et al., 2022). Critics also stressed the impact of the policy on officers and policing. Soon after the “Day One Memo” was released, NYPD commissioner Keechant Sewell sent a mass email saying it “will invite violence against police officers and will have deleterious effects on our relationship with the communities we protect”, comments supported by the president of the Police Benevolent Association (Bromwich & Rashbaum, 2022; Katersky, 2022). The head of the PBA also spoke directly to the impact of prosecution incentives on enforcement, saying “Police officers don’t want to be sent out to enforce laws that the DAs won’t prosecute” (Celona et al., 2022).

Data and Method

Method

To determine the effect of non-prosecution policies on arrest patterns, I compare police activity in “treated” precincts (those in Manhattan and the Bronx) to “untreated” precincts (those in Queens, Brooklyn, and Staten Island). Because the Bronx and Manhattan adopted their non-prosecution policies eight quarters apart rather than simultaneously, I use a staggered-adoption framework to make this comparison. Rather than make a direct comparison of the treated precincts to all untreated precincts, I employ synthetic control methods with partial pooling (Ben-Michael et al., 2022). Partial pooling optimizes the weights of donors to balance fit at both the individual and pooled level. In this analysis, this allows me to construct synthetic controls that are credible at both the level of the individual precinct and the treated borough(s). Because even a well-fitting synthetic control rarely reproduces a treated precinct’s pre-treatment trend exactly, I additionally apply a ridge regression-based correction that estimates the bias introduced by this remaining mismatch and adjusts the resulting estimate accordingly (Ben-Michael et al., 2021).

In addition to generally aiding the fit of the control group, synthetic controls help address a bias concern related to clustering. In this analysis, there are functionally two treated clusters (Manhattan and the Bronx) and three untreated clusters (Brooklyn, Queens, and Staten Island). When clusters are of unequal size and cluster size is correlated with potential outcomes, estimates may be biased (Middleton & Aronow, 2015). As the number of precincts varies between the boroughs, and assignment to treatment is non-random, a naive estimation strategy would bias the estimates. By constructing a control group with the same number of synthetic precincts as the treated group, I avoid this cluster size problem.

As the Bronx is treated first, synthetic controls for precincts in the Bronx are assembled from precincts in all other boroughs. For precincts in Manhattan, synthetic controls are constructed from precincts in Brooklyn, Queens, and Staten Island only. The synthetic controls are constructed to match pre-treatment outcome trends — that is, they construct a synthetic precinct that best matches the treated precinct’s pattern of arrests and summons for target offenses prior to the introduction of the non-prosecution policy.³ The estimand of interest in these analyses is the ATT. This is the average effect of the policy on arrests and summons in the treated precincts in each period following treatment or averaged across all post-treatment periods, depending on the analysis.

The independent variable in every analysis is the presence of a non-prosecution policy. The treat-

³Table A1 shows results from synthetic control models that construct synthetic precincts that take into account other characteristics of the precincts, including demographics, income, and public housing density. However, the fit on these models is significantly worse. The default for staggered adoption with synthetic controls (Ben-Michael et al., 2022) is to simply match based on pre-treatment outcomes.

ment is considered binary and permanent. There is a clear announcement date for each policy, and neither DA has announced amended policies that change the offenses that are and are not prosecuted. Treatment occurs at the borough level, so all precincts within the borough are considered treated at once. However, patrols are organized at the precinct level, so outcomes (both arrests and stops) are measured by precinct. Outcomes in each precinct are summed in standardized 91 day quarters to smooth month-to-month noise and ensure a sufficient number of observations in each precinct. The first 91 day quarter begins on January 22, 2020, the day the Bronx DA’s office announced their non-prosecution policy. Manhattan is treated 8 quarters later, on January 3, 2022. Effects are calculated for six quarters before and 4 quarters after the announcement of each policy.

To directly test the influence of punishment on low-level enforcement decisions, I first examine whether lack of prosecution for specific offenses reduced arrests and summons for those offenses. While the non-prosecution policies implemented in the Bronx and Manhattan are similar, they target slightly different lists of offenses. As a result, the outcome for the staggered adoption design is the logged sum of arrests and summons only for those offenses targeted by both policies (Table 1). In addition, I separately analyze the effect of each borough’s policy on arrests for all of its target offenses. For these borough-specific analyses, the dependent variable is the logged sum of arrests and summons for all offenses targeted by that borough’s policy, per precinct per quarter. If the total number of arrests for target offenses drop more in the treated boroughs than in the control boroughs, this suggests that punishment factored into the discretionary enforcement decisions of NYPD patrol officers.

Non-prosecution policies may also have an impact on the enforcement of offenses that continue to be prosecuted (non-target offenses). Specifically, if officers respond to the policies by reducing enforcement for target offenses, there will be a theoretical surplus of police resources. How are these resources re-allocated? In a *substitution* scenario, officers spend more time on non-target enforcement. In a *de-policing* scenario, officers reduce total effort spent on misdemeanor crime. To account for both of these possibilities, I examine the effect of non-prosecution policy rollout on the logged sum of arrests and criminal court summons for non-felony offenses not targeted by the policy. An increase in non-target enforcement in treated precincts would indicate a substitution effect, while unchanging or decreasing enforcement would indicate a de-policing effect.

In addition, I test whether the introduction of these policies changed the total demand for police services. Any change in enforcement needs to be compared against the incidence of crime — after all, greater or fewer arrests may simply reflect underlying fluctuations in the number of offenses themselves. The impact of non-prosecution policies on calls for service can also help assess claims made by opponents of such policies that reducing quality-of-life enforcement would lead to an increase in criminal activity. However, rates of crime are notoriously difficult to measure accurately (Mosher et al.,

2010), and official statistics are in part a function of enforcement effort itself. Rather than measuring crime itself, I rely on the NYPD’s Calls for Service data (City of New York, 2026a), which records all 911 calls placed to the police department. As these calls are citizen-initiated, they are a source of information about crime incidence that is independent from enforcement effort and possible official manipulation.

Data

The main source of data for this analysis comes from two open datasets provided by the City of New York. The NYPD Historic Arrests data catalogs all arrests carried out by city police going back to 2006 (NYC OpenData, 2025). The Criminal Court Summons data tracks all summons issued by the New York Police Department going back to the same year (City of New York, 2026b). In contrast to arrests, where an individual suspected of a crime is taken to the precinct for booking, summons are a ticket issued at the scene. These tickets require a future court appearance, and are often issued for minor misdemeanors and non-criminal offenses. Together, these datasets comprehensively document the enforcement of non-felony offenses by the New York Police Department. Critically for this analysis, each of these datasets provides information about the time and location where the arrest or ticketing took place, as well as information about the suspected offense.

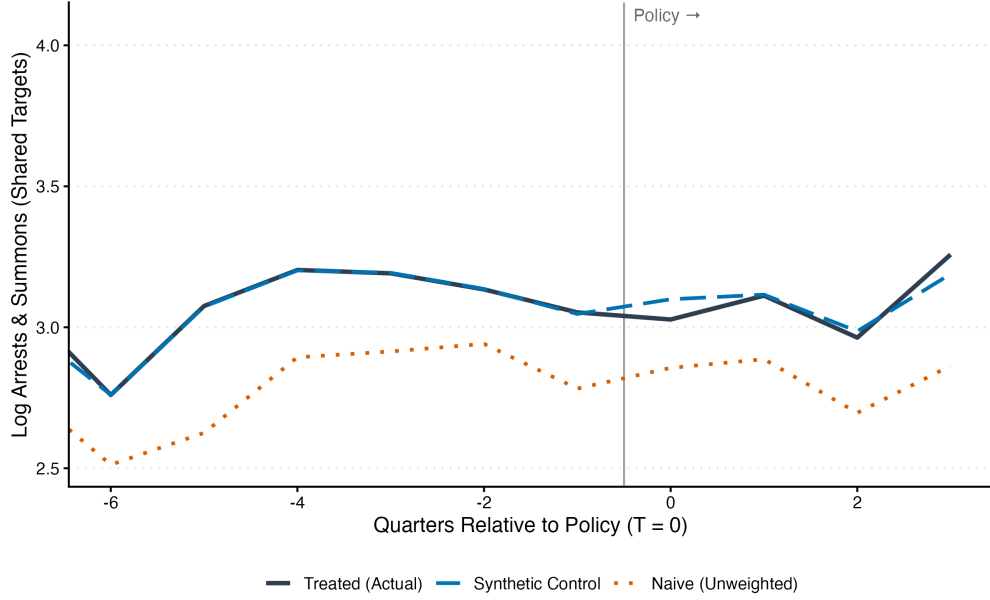
To prepare the data for analysis, I group all arrests, summons, and calls for service by NYPD precinct. With enforcement actions mapped to precincts, I calculate the total number of arrests and summons for each offense code per precinct per quarter. For each precinct, I calculate counts of the number of shared target arrests/summons (Column 1 in Table 1), borough-specific target arrests/summons (Columns 2 and 3 in Table 1), non-target arrests/summons, and calls for service per 91-day standardized quarter. As enforcement by precinct is heavily right-skewed, I apply a log transformation to all of the outcomes.

Results

How does ending prosecution for low-level offenses influence enforcement? Before proceeding with the staggered adoption analysis, I first check the pre-treatment fit of the synthetic controls. Figure 1 plots the average log arrests and summons for treated precincts in the Bronx and Manhattan, the synthetic precincts generated by the partial pooling procedure, and all untreated precincts in Brooklyn, Queens, and Staten Island.⁴ While the simple untreated average of untreated precincts tracks the pre-treatment trend of the treated precincts fairly well, it is consistently lower than the average in treated precincts.

⁴Figures A1 and A2 in the Appendix illustrate the fit of the borough specific models. Figure A3 in the Appendix shows raw arrest trends in each borough for total and target arrests as evidence of parallel trends.

Figure 1: Pre-Treatment Fit: Synthetic Control vs. Naive Comparison



Notes: Each series is the average log arrests and summons for shared target offenses, plotted in event time (quarters relative to each precinct’s policy date). “Treated (Actual)” is the observed mean across treated precincts in the Bronx and Manhattan. “Synthetic Control” is the implied counterfactual: the treated mean minus the estimated ATT, so pre-treatment deviations from the treated line reflect residual imbalance. “Naive (Unweighted)” is the simple unweighted average of always-control precincts (Brooklyn, Queens, and Staten Island), aligned to the same event-time clock as each treated cohort and averaged across cohorts proportional to the number of treated precincts in each. The vertical line marks the onset of the non-prosecution policy ($T = 0$).

In comparison, the average in the synthetic control group tracks the pre-treatment trends in the treated group almost perfectly over the six pre-treatment periods.⁵

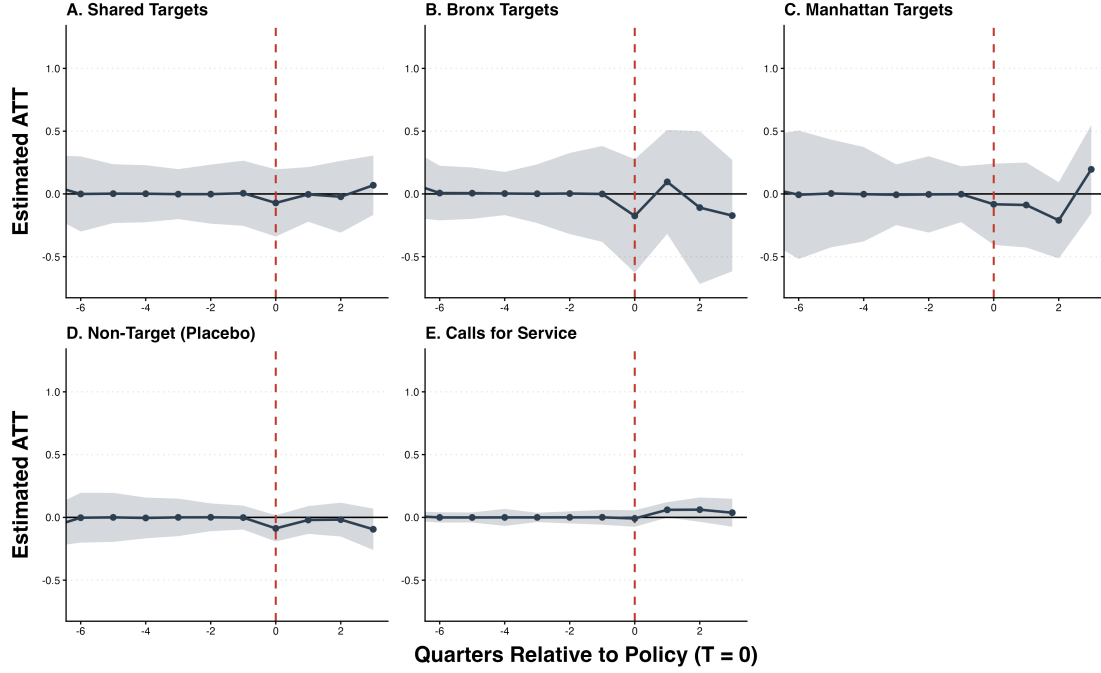
Figure 2 presents event study graphs plotting the ATT of the non-prosecution policies on five outcomes. Each point is an estimate of the ATT in a given standardized 91-day quarter before or after the introduction of the policy, with 95% confidence interval bars. In all five plots, pre-treatment ATTs are stable around 0, indicating that there are no pre-trends.

Panel (A) shows the impact of the introduction of non-prosecution policies on shared target offenses in both the Bronx and Manhattan. The effect on enforcement is functionally zero, with slightly more variance than in the pre-treatment periods. To determine if the non-prosecution policies functioned similarly in both boroughs, panels (B) and (C) in Figure 2 show event studies separately for the Bronx and Manhattan. The ATT here is the effect of the introduction of the policy on the number of arrests and summons for all offenses targeted by each borough’s policy. While the estimate for some periods in both boroughs is negative, the effect is inconsistent and errors are large.

Table 2 quantifies the effects from the event study plots. As the outcomes are logged, the coefficients in each model should be interpreted as the percent change in arrests and summons (Columns 1-4) or

⁵Effect size and model fit are similar for different specifications of leads and lags. See Figures A4 and A5 in the Appendix.

Figure 2: Event Study Estimates of Non-Prosecution Policies



Notes: Point estimates represent the time-varying ATT across all treated precincts. As the outcome is logged, the ATT should be interpreted as the average percent change in arrests and summons among the treated precincts. Treated precincts in plots A, D, and E are all precincts in both the Bronx and Manhattan. Treated precincts in plots B and C are only precincts in the Bronx and Manhattan, respectively. The shaded region indicates 95% confidence intervals.

calls for service (Column 5) following the introduction of a non-prosecution policy. Across the model specifications, the introduction of a non-prosecution policy did not precipitate a statistically significant change in any outcome. The estimate with the greatest magnitude is approximately an 8.6% drop in target arrests and summons in the Bronx, though this model is also the least precise. Low L2 imbalance across the model specifications confirms that the synthetic controls greatly improved pre-treatment fit at both the precinct and treatment-group level, while the pooling parameter v indicates that all models are striking a balance between optimizing weights for precinct-level and global fit.

While I do not find significant effects at the aggregate level, it is possible that effects are masked by the significant heterogeneity between precincts. After all, quality-of-life policing is not practiced equally across the city. There are two opposing intuitions about how the effects of reduced punishment may interact with discretionary policing across different types of neighborhoods. On the one hand, the greater the absolute level of arrests and summons for target offenses in a precinct in the pre-treatment periods, the greater the possible reduction in the post-treatment periods. This is the effect pursued by reformist DAs, who explicitly target offenses enforced inequitably. If this is the case, the effect of reduced punishments on enforcement may be greater in precincts with qualities predictive of pre-treatment enforcement. On the other hand, strenuous enforcement in the pre-treatment periods likely

Table 2: Effects of Non-Prosecution Policy on Enforcement

Term	Shared Targets	Bronx Targets	Manhattan Targets	Non-Target	Calls for Service
Aggregate ATT	-0.01 (0.10)	-0.09 (0.16)	-0.05 (0.11)	-0.06 (0.05)	0.04 (0.04)
<i>p</i> -value	p = 0.940	p = 0.584	p = 0.686	p = 0.261	p = 0.360
Scaled Global L2 Imbalance	0.009	0.005	0.019	0.037	0.011
Scaled Individual L2 Imbalance	0.219	0.077	0.196	0.168	0.139
Pooling (ν)	0.392	0.765	0.522	0.597	0.622
N (Units)	34 Tr / 43 Co	12 Tr / 65 Co	22 Tr / 55 Co	34 Tr / 43 Co	34 Tr / 43 Co

textitNote:

The table displays results from staggered adoption/difference-in-difference models with synthetic controls citep-ben2022synthetic. Each column reports the average ATT in post-treatment periods for precincts covered by non-prosecution policies. The effect is estimated at the precinct level and averaged across the four post-treatment quarters. Column 1 reports average effect of the policy on the number of arrests and criminal summons for offenses targeted by both non-prosecution policies in precincts in The Bronx and Manhattan. Columns 2 and 3 report the average effect for only treated precincts in each borough separately, where the dependent variable is arrests and summons for offenses specified in that borough’s non-prosecution policy. Column 4 reports the average effect of policy implementation on misdemeanors not targeted by the policy. Column 5 reports the effect of the policy on calls for service.

reflects an arrangement of interests in the area that support such enforcement, and may continue to support it even in the absence of punishment. For example, if businesses demand arrests for quality-of-life offenses because they allow police officers to physically remove individuals they perceive as nuisances from near their storefronts, this demand may be fairly inelastic to the eventual punishment. In this scenario, the effect would be attenuated in precincts with attributes predictive of greater pre-treatment enforcement.

To investigate possible treatment effect heterogeneity, I regress the precinct-level ATT on neighborhood characteristics associated with quality-of-life policing in New York: race (NYCLU, 2025), commercial activity (Reeping, 2025), and gentrification (Laniyonu, 2018). Precinct characteristics are calculated using area-weighted aggregation of census tract-level data. Since precinct boundaries and census tracts do not perfectly conform, tract demographics are weighted by the proportion of overlap with the precinct and aggregated across tracts. For precinct demographics, I calculate the weighted percentage of the precinct’s residents who identify as Black and/or Hispanic using tract-level demographic estimates taken from the 2019 ACS. To capture the commercial or residential character of a precinct, I calculate a ratio of jobs to residents. First, I perform area-weighted interpolation of the number of jobs (drawn from tract-level 2019 LODS estimates) and the number of residents (also from the 2019 ACS) in a precinct. Then, the precinct-level ratio is calculated and logged to accommodate heavy right skew. A measure of gentrification, adapted from Sharp (2014), is constructed by calculating tract-level change in residents’ educational attainment and employment in post-industrial and management sectors between 2014 and 2019 ACS estimates and aggregating to the precinct level. Finally, I regress the ATT on the monthly average number of target offense arrests from 2019 as a pure measure of enforcement intensity.

Table 3 presents results from a series of models testing the interaction between relevant predictors

Table 3: Effects of Precinct Attributes on Treatment Effect Heterogeneity

	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)
Constant	-0.084 (0.149)	-0.010 (0.097)	0.010 (0.073)	0.490 (0.576)
% Black & Hispanic Residents	0.133 (0.225)			
Commercial-Residential Ratio (log)		0.004 (0.100)		
Gentrification Index			0.174 (0.130)	
2019 Average Arrests				-0.087 (0.100)
N (Precincts)	34	34	34	34
R ²	0.011	0.000	0.053	0.023

Note:

The dependent variable is the time-averaged ATT for each treated precinct, from the shared targets model in Table 2. Each column regresses precinct-level ATTs on a single precinct attribute.

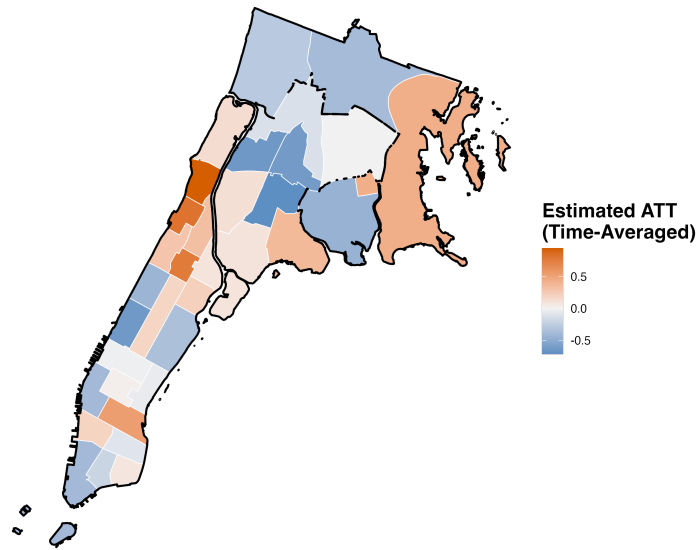
of quality-of-life policing and the effect of non-prosecution policies on enforcement. None of the interactions reach standard levels of statistical significance, and the sign of the estimates is split between negative and positive. This suggests that the null effects in Table 2 are not concealing significant drops in enforcement in more or less policed precincts. A visual inspection of the precinct-level estimates in Figure 3 indicates that there is substantial variation in the effect between precincts. While positive ATTs are clustered in upper Manhattan and the south Bronx, there are also many neighboring precincts with opposite effects.

Discussion

While my results suggest null effects, the estimates lack the precision needed to conclude that the true ATT of non-prosecution policies on enforcement is zero. Instead, I use the confidence intervals to bound the range of plausible effects. Table 4 reports 95% confidence intervals for each model. For offenses targeted by both policies, the interval runs from -0.200 to 0.186 log points, which rules out declines in enforcement larger than about 18%. The corresponding bounds are about 34% for the Bronx’s target offenses and 25% for Manhattan’s. However, smaller declines cannot be ruled out. Table 4 also reports the minimum detectable effect (MDE) for each model: this design would detect a true 24.1% decline in shared-target enforcement with 80% probability, and would detect smaller declines less reliably.

The edges of the bounds remain theoretically relevant. A decline at the edge of the Shared Targets interval would mean that four in five arrests and summons for these offenses continued to take place

Figure 3: Time-Averaged Treatment Effect by Precinct



Notes: Precincts are shaded to indicate the precinct-level estimate of the ATT from the shared targets model (Column 1 in Table 2). Orange precincts indicate a positive ATT (more target offense enforcement following the policy introduction) and blue precincts indicate a negative ATT (less target offense enforcement).

Table 4: Precision and Policy-Scale Implications

Model	95% CI (log)	MDE @ 80% Power	Change in Arrests at MDE (+/-)
Shared Targets	[-0.200, 0.186]	24.1%	2,089
Bronx Targets	[-0.410, 0.230]	36.7%	1,801
Manhattan Targets	[-0.282, 0.189]	28.6%	859
Non-Target	[-0.149, 0.039]	12.6%	17,716
Calls for Service	[-0.040, 0.115]	10.5%	

Note:

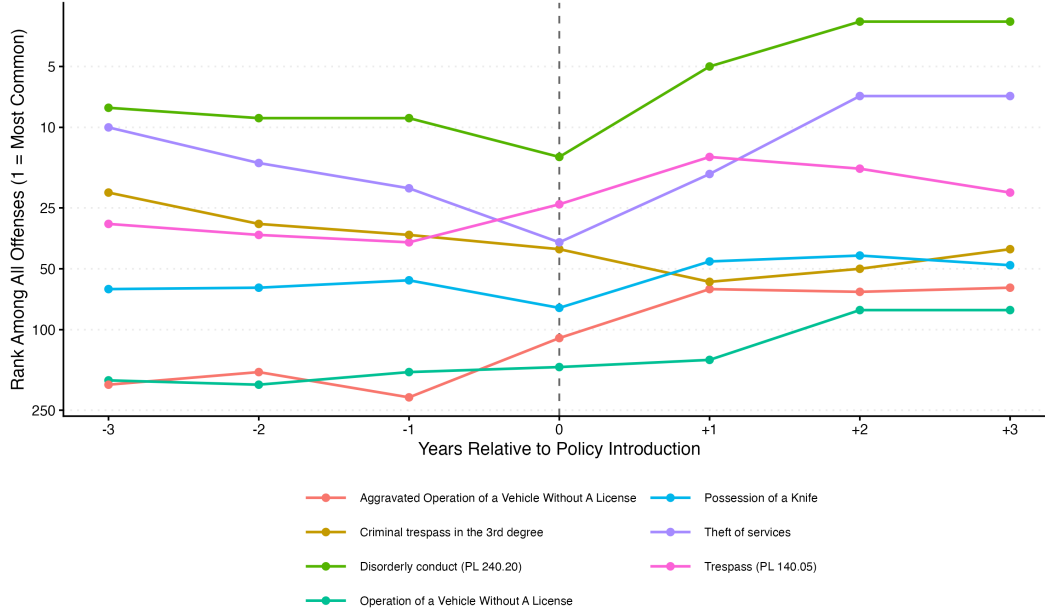
The minimum detectable effect (MDE) is the smallest true percentage change in outcomes this design could detect with 80% probability at a 95% confidence level. Change in arrests at MDE multiplies this percentage by the 2019 annual count of arrests and summons in each model’s treated precincts.

after prosecutors had publicly committed to declining them. Even at the lower bound of the Bronx interval, a 34% decline, officers would have continued to make roughly two thirds of the arrests and summons for target offenses. The persistence of enforcement absent prosecution indicates that arrests and summons offer utility to the police outside of the deterrent effect of punishment.

I offer a possible interpretation based on what offenses end up in non-prosecution policies. These lists of offenses are not random: they were selected because they were visible, inequitably enforced, and fairly common. Police departments are known for using “catch-all” offenses to search, move, and arrest individuals who officers believe are suspicious but have not committed any other offense — with trespassing being the catch-all for New York (Moskos, 2009). If prosecutors are targeting offenses where enforcement yields greater non-punishment utility, and the reaction to a non-prosecution policy is a generalized pullback in policing effort, there may be greater declines in enforcement in the less “useful” non-target offenses.

Table 3 indicates that there is not systematic heterogeneity in effect sizes based on precinct characteristics. However, the substantial variation in precinct-level effects suggests that decisions related to how officers enforce quality-of-life offenses are made at the precinct level. If, as the street-level bureaucracy literature suggests, each officer is an island, then we would expect there to be a distribution of responses among officers that would average out similarly across precincts (Brehm & Gates, 1997; Lipsky, 2010). Further, if we thought that officer behavior was dictated at the organizational level, such as the force or the union, then we would also expect homogeneity in subordinate units like precincts (Paoline, 2003). The fact that the effect varies so much from precinct to precinct suggests that precinct commanders are the ones making enforcement policies within their patrol areas. While other scholars have shown NYPD officers to be responsive to high level policy changes (Mummolo, 2018), I provide a validation of the power of precinct commanders to shift officer behavior. This is in line with journalistic accounts of precinct commanders and their deputies using daily meetings to instruct patrol officers on the number and kind of offenses to focus on (Rayman, 2010).

Figure 4: Relative Frequency of Enforcement for Target Offenses



Notes: Figure plots the relative frequency of arrests and summons for each of the shared target offenses in each year. 1 represents the non-felony offense with the most arrests and summons in a given year.

Alongside imprecision, external validity is the other major challenge. While limiting the study to New York City provides a rare test of varying punishments within the jurisdiction of a single police department, it also leaves open the possibility that police responses in other jurisdictions would vary. Further, my estimand is the ATT, which only represents the response of Manhattan and Bronx officers. However, many large urban police departments outside of New York likely have a similar suite of motivations for arrests that are unrelated to punishment. Tests of the effect of non-prosecution policies on enforcement could be conducted in other cities with progressive prosecutors, though such designs would likely have to be a pure pre-/post- test without untreated control precincts. Another way to extend the analysis would be to look at the staggered adoption of prosecutorial policies decriminalizing marijuana possession, which occurred in many more cities than broader non-prosecution policies. This would trade off improved external validity in terms of applying to more cities with reduced external validity in terms of application to other kinds of offenses, should marijuana offenses be unique in some way.

Conclusion

The introduction of non-prosecution policies in two New York City boroughs was an opportunity to determine how downstream punishment influences discretionary arrest behavior. Employing a staggered adoption design with synthetic controls, I test the effect of the non-prosecution policies on

arrests and summons in precincts in the treated boroughs. At standard levels of significance, I fail to find an effect of the policies on arrests and summons for offenses targeted by the policies. However, the estimation of the ATT is not precise enough to state that there is no effect at all. Rather, the confidence intervals rule out large decreases in enforcement: declines of more than about 18% for offenses targeted by both policies, more than about 34% for the Bronx’s target offenses, and more than about 25% for Manhattan’s. While the effect varies greatly between precincts, I do not find heterogeneity in the impact of the policies on enforcement based on precinct characteristics. Even if total misdemeanor enforcement may have declined as a part of a greater pullback in policing, I find that arrests and summons for target offenses still occur with similar or higher frequency relative to other offenses.

Progressive prosecutors have tried to modify police behavior by exerting pressure where they can — on downstream punishment outcomes. While it is possible there is a small anticipation effect among patrol officers in response, my results indicate that the majority of enforcement actions that would have taken place absent the policies continue to occur. It is clear that quality-of-life policing offers some utility to the police beyond the deterrent effect of punishment and a legalistic commitment to law enforcement. This design cannot identify the source of that utility, though the policing literature provides many possibilities, such as providing evidence of effort, creating pretext for searches, satisfying business and community group demands, and enforcing racial-spatial boundaries. The truth is likely some combination of several factors — a study that could isolate the influence of each would provide a major contribution to our understanding of police behavior.

References

- ACLU of Maryland. (2006). Class action complaint against the baltimore police department [https://www.aclu-md.org/app/uploads/2017/10/bcpd_complaint.pdf].
- Agan, A., Doleac, J. L., & Harvey, A. (2023). Misdemeanor prosecution. *The Quarterly Journal of Economics*, 138(3), 1453–1505.
- Baltimore City Fraternal Order of Police. (2012). Blueprint for improved policing [<https://embed.documentcloud.org/documents/395954-blueprint-for-improved-policing/>].
- Bass, S. (2001). Policing space, policing race: Social control imperatives and police discretionary decisions. *Social justice*, 28(1 (83), 156–176.
- Bellin, J. (2019). The power of prosecutors. *New York University Law Review*, 94, 171.
- Ben-Michael, E., Feller, A., & Rothstein, J. (2021). The augmented synthetic control method. *Journal of the American Statistical Association*, 116(536), 1789–1803.
- Ben-Michael, E., Feller, A., & Rothstein, J. (2022). Synthetic controls with staggered adoption. *Journal of the Royal Statistical Society Series B: Statistical Methodology*, 84(2), 351–381.
- Brehm, J., & Gates, S. (1997). *Working, shirking, and sabotage: Bureaucratic response to a democratic public*. University of Michigan Press.
- Bromwich, J. E., & Rashbaum, W. K. (2022). Conflict quickly emerges between top prosecutor and police commissioner. *New York Times*. <https://www.nytimes.com/2022/01/08/nyregion/alvin-bragg-police-chief-eric-adams.html>
- Bronx DA’s Office. (2026, February). Personal Communication.
- Celona, L., Lapin, T., Moore, T., Reuven, F., & Golding, B. (2022). Manhattan da to stop seeking prison sentences in slew of criminal cases. *New York Post*. <https://nypost.com/2022/01/04/manhattan-da-alvin-bragg-to-stop-seeking-prison-in-some-cases/>
- City of New York. (2026a). Nypd calls for service. https://data.cityofnewyork.us/Public-Safety/NYPD-Calls-for-Service-Historic-/d6zx-ckhd/about_data
- City of New York. (2026b). NYPD Criminal Court Summons (Historic). <https://data.cityofnewyork.us/Public-Safety/NYPD-Criminal-Court-Summons-Historic-/sv2w-rv3k>
- Clark, T. S. (2025). *A model of criminal justice discretion*.
- Damaska, M. R. (1986). *The faces of justice and state authority: A comparative approach to the legal process*. Yale University Press.
- Department of Justice. (2016). Investigation of the baltimore city police department [https://www.justice.gov/d9/bpd_findings8-10-16.pdf].
- Eckhouse, L. (2022). Metrics management and bureaucratic accountability: Evidence from policing. *American Journal of Political Science*, 66(2), 385–401.
- Erica Orden. (2022). The Trials of Alvin Bragg. *New York Magazine*. <https://nymag.com/intelligencer/article/manhattan-da-alvin-bragg-memo-trump.html>

- Fagan, J., & Davies, G. (2000). Street stops and broken windows: Terry, race, and disorder in new york city. *Fordham Urb. LJ*, 28, 457.
- Gelman, A., Fagan, J., & Kiss, A. (2007). An analysis of the new york city police department’s “stop-and-frisk” policy in the context of claims of racial bias. *Journal of the American Statistical Association*, 102(479), 813–823.
- Golding, B. (2021). 6,500 accused nyc felons go scot-free as das decline to prosecute. *Fox News*. <https://www.foxnews.com/us/nyc-felons-crimes-district-attorneys-prosecute>
- Hahn, J. W., Sanchez, G., Subramanian, R., & Merrow, W. (2024, March). *The Hidden Toll of New York City’s Misdemeanor System* (tech. rep.). Brennan Center for Justice. New York, NY. <https://www.brennancenter.org/our-work/analysis-opinion/hidden-toll-new-york-citys-misdemeanor-system>
- Jain, E. (2015). Arrests as regulation. *Stanford Law Review*, 809–867.
- Katersky, A. (2022). Manhattan da backtracks on prosecution memo perceived as soft on crime. *ABC News*. <https://abcnews.go.com/US/manhattan-da-backtracks-prosecution-memo-perceived-soft-crime/story?id=82676186>
- Kelling, G. L. (1996). *Fixing broken windows : Restoring order and reducing crime in our communities*. Martin Kessler Books/Free Press.
- Kelling, G. L., Wilson, J. Q., et al. (1982). Broken windows. *Atlantic monthly*, 249(3), 29–38.
- Kohler, J. (2023). Police resistance and politics undercut the authority of prosecutors trying to reform the justice system. *Propublica*. <https://www.propublica.org/article/police-politicians-undermined-reform-prosecutors-chicago-philadelphia>
- Kohler-Hausmann, I. (2019, August). *Misdemeanorland: Criminal Courts and Social Control in an Age of Broken Windows Policing* (1st ed.). Princeton University Press. <https://doi.org/10.23943/princeton/9780691196114.001.0001>
- LaFlore, A. (2018, November). After Missouri vote, Jackson County changes policy on prosecuting marijuana. Retrieved April 15, 2026, from <https://fox4kc.com/news/after-missouri-vote-jackson-county-changes-policy-on-prosecuting-marijuana/>
- Laniyonu, A. (2018). Coffee Shops and Street Stops: Policing Practices in Gentrifying Neighborhoods. *Urban Affairs Review*, 54(5), 898–930. <https://doi.org/10.1177/1078087416689728>
- Lipsky, M. (2010). *Street-level bureaucracy: Dilemmas of the individual in public services* (30th anniversary expanded ed) [OCLC: 503596064]. Russell Sage Foundation.
- Luna, E. (2004). The overcriminalization phenomenon. *Am. UL Rev.*, 54, 703.
- Middleton, J. A., & Aronow, P. M. (2015). Unbiased estimation of the average treatment effect in cluster-randomized experiments. *Statistics, Politics and Policy*, 6(1-2), 39–75.
- Mosher, C. J., Miethe, T. D., & Hart, T. C. (2010). *The mismeasure of crime*. Sage Publications.
- Moskos, P. (2009). *Cop in the hood: My year policing baltimore’s eastern district*. Princeton University Press.
- Mummolo, J. (2018). Modern police tactics, police-citizen interactions, and the prospects for reform. *The Journal of Politics*, 80(1), 1–15.

- Natapoff, A. (2011). Misdemeanors. *S. Cal. L. Rev.*, 85, 1313.
- Natapoff, A. (2023). Misdemeanor declination: A theory of internal separation of powers. *Tex. L. Rev.*, 102, 937.
- New York Police Department. (n.d.). Find your precinct and sector [Accessed: 2025-12-12].
- NYC OpenData. (2025). Nypd arrests data (historic) [Accessed: 2025-12-14].
- NYCLU. (2025). Stop-and-frisk data [Accessed: 2025-12-14].
- Paoline, E. A. (2003). Taking stock: Toward a richer understanding of police culture. *Journal of Criminal Justice*, 31(3), 199–214. [https://doi.org/10.1016/S0047-2352\(03\)00002-3](https://doi.org/10.1016/S0047-2352(03)00002-3)
- Ponce de Leon, M. M., & Rizzotti, L. (2024). The effect of police management on crime and officers' behavior: Evidence from compstat. *Available at SSRN 4799283*.
- Post Editorial Board. (2025). Da darcel clark is the root cause of crime in the bronx. *New York Post*. <https://nypost.com/2025/03/12/opinion/da-darcel-clark-is-the-root-cause-of-crime-in-the-bronx/>
- Rayman, G. (2010, May). The NYPD Tapes: Inside Bed-Stuy's 81st Precinct. Retrieved February 4, 2026, from <https://www.villagevoice.com/the-nypd-tapes-inside-bed-stuys-81st-precinct/>
- Reeping, P. (2025). Vital signs: State of the city on crime 2024. *Vital City NYC*.
- Sharp, E. B. (2014). Politics, Economics, and Urban Policing: The Postindustrial City Thesis and Rival Explanations of Heightened Order Maintenance Policing. *Urban Affairs Review*, 50(3), 340–365. <https://doi.org/10.1177/1078087413490397>
- Sklansky, D. A. (2016). The nature and function of prosecutorial power. *J. Crim. L. & Criminology*, 106, 473.
- Soss, J., & Weaver, V. (2017). Police are our government: Politics, political science, and the policing of race–class subjugated communities. *Annual Review of Political Science*, 20(1), 565–591.
- Stevenson, M., & Mayson, S. (2018). The Scale of Misdemeanor Justice. *Boston University Law Review*, 98(3), 731–778. Retrieved April 15, 2026, from <https://heinonline.org/HOL/P?h=hein.journals/bulr98&i=749>
- University of Illinois Chicago Law Enforcement Epidemiology Project. (n.d.). Facts and Figures on Injuries Caused by Law Enforcement. Retrieved April 15, 2026, from <https://policeepi.uic.edu/data-civilian-injuries-law-enforcement/facts-figures-injuries-caused-law-enforcement/>
- Vera Institute of Justice. (2021). As part of vera institute initiative, progressive county attorney will stop prosecuting non-public safety traffic stops to address systemic bias, honoring philando castile and others [https://www.vera.org/newsroom/as-part-of-vera-institute-initiative-progressive-county-attorney-will-stop-prosecuting-non-public-safety-traffic-stops-to-address-systemic-bias-honoring-philando-castile-and-others].
- Vitale, A. S. (2008). *City of disorder: How the quality of life campaign transformed New York politics* [OCLC: 176648925]. New York University Press.
- Weaver, V. M., & Lerman, A. E. (2010). Political consequences of the carceral state. *American Political Science Review*, 104(4), 817–833. <https://doi.org/10.1017/S0003055410000456>

- White, A. R. (2022). Political participation amid mass incarceration. *Annual Review of Political Science*, 25, 111–130.
- Wilson, J. Q. (1978, January). *Varieties of Police Behavior : The Management of Law and Order in Eight Communities, With a New Preface by the Author*. Harvard University Press. Retrieved August 27, 2026, from <https://research.ebsco.com/plink/f75e7011-45ec-3a1b-944d-0efc839795a2>

A Appendix

Table A1: Appendix: Policy Effect on Arrests and Summons, Covariate-Adjusted (Ridge) Models

Term	Shared Targets	Bronx Targets	Manhattan Targets	Non-Target	Calls for Service
Aggregate ATT	-0.15 (0.14)	-0.32 (0.29)	-0.19 (0.17)	-0.11* (0.05)	0.00 (0.04)
<i>p</i> -value	p = 0.273	p = 0.273	p = 0.247	p = 0.033	p = 0.961
Scaled Global L2 Imbalance	0.026	0.056	0.564	0.054	0.040
Scaled Individual L2 Imbalance	0.436	0.159	0.583	0.286	0.164
Pooling (ν)	0.146	0.515	0.343	0.258	0.387
N (Units)	33 Tr / 43 Co	12 Tr / 64 Co	21 Tr / 55 Co	33 Tr / 43 Co	33 Tr / 43 Co

Note:

This table replicates Table 2 with covariate-adjusted synthetic controls. The synthetic control weights here are chosen to balance treated and control precincts on four pre-treatment covariates: share Black and Hispanic residents, average 2019 arrests, average household income, and NYCHA residential density. Precinct 22 (Central Park) is dropped from the sample as it is missing covariates related to residents.

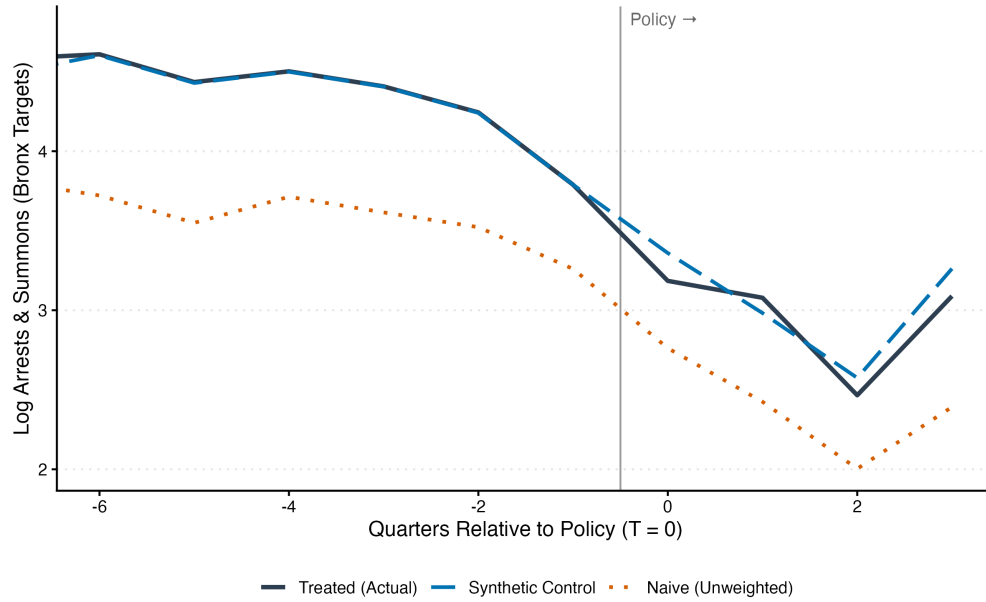
Table A2: Appendix: Policy Effect on Enforcement, Quarterly vs. Monthly Aggregation

Term	Shared Targets	Bronx Targets	Manhattan Targets	Non-Target	Calls for Service
Quarterly (91-day periods)					
Aggregate ATT	-0.01 (0.10)	-0.09 (0.16)	-0.05 (0.11)	-0.06 (0.05)	0.04 (0.04)
<i>p</i> -value	p = 0.940	p = 0.584	p = 0.686	p = 0.261	p = 0.360
Monthly (28-day periods)					
Aggregate ATT	0.00 (0.09)	-0.19 (0.19)	0.04 (0.12)	-0.04 (0.06)	0.05 (0.04)
<i>p</i> -value	p = 0.973	p = 0.334	p = 0.700	p = 0.436	p = 0.184
Scaled Global L2 Imbalance	0.063	0.100	0.090	0.257	0.100
Scaled Individual L2 Imbalance	0.436	0.217	0.519	0.256	0.154
Pooling (ν)	0.230	0.496	0.230	0.362	0.492
N (Units)	34 Tr / 43 Co	12 Tr / 65 Co	22 Tr / 55 Co	34 Tr / 43 Co	34 Tr / 43 Co

Note:

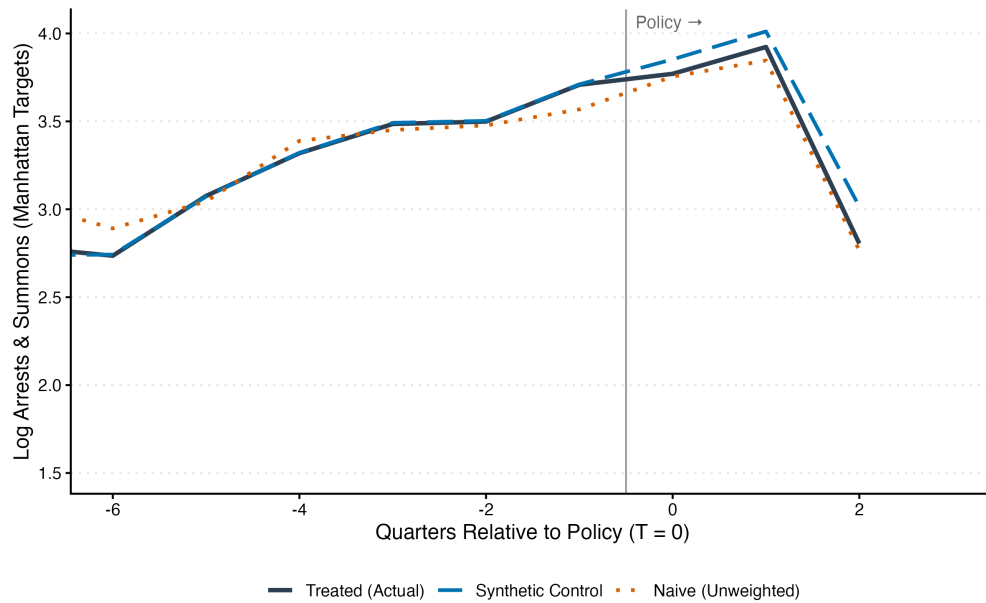
The quarterly panel reproduces the aggregate ATTs from Table 2. The monthly panel re-estimates each model with outcomes summed in 28-day periods rather than 91-day quarters. The monthly models average the ATT over 13 post-treatment periods (364 days, the same window as four quarters) and balance on 20 pre-treatment periods (560 days, compared to 546 days for six quarters).

Figure A1: Pre-Treatment Fit: The Bronx (Borough-Specific Model)



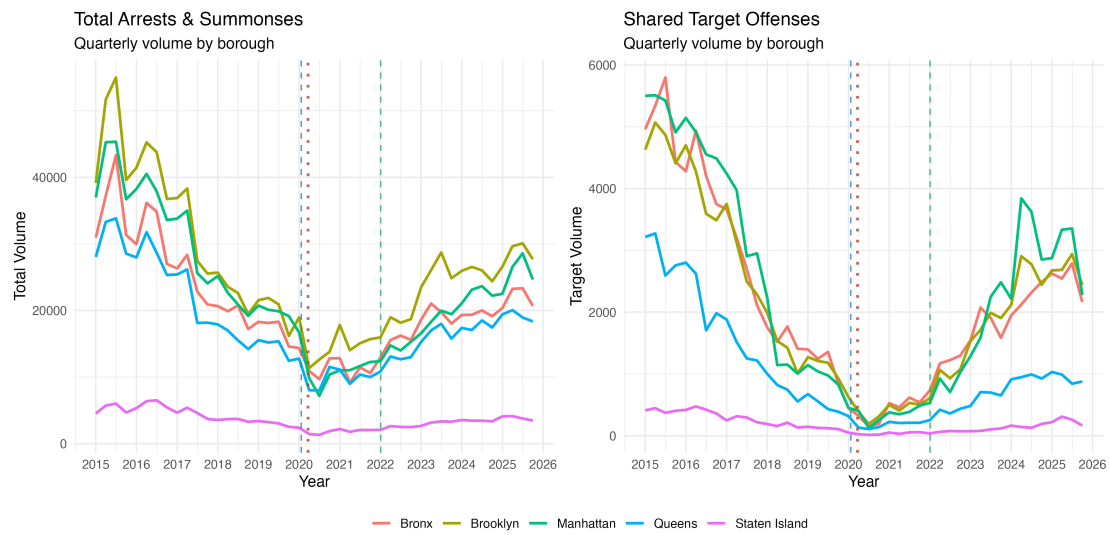
Notes: Same construction as Figure 1, but using the Bronx-only model and Bronx-specific target offenses. Control units are all non-Bronx precincts, aligned to the Bronx policy date ($T = 0$).

Figure A2: Pre-Treatment Fit: Manhattan (Borough-Specific Model)



Notes: Same construction as Figure 1, but using the Manhattan-only model and Manhattan-specific target offenses. Control units are all non-Manhattan precincts, aligned to the Manhattan policy date ($T = 0$).

Figure A3: Misdemeanor Arrest Trends in New York



Note: Vertical lines mark the Bronx non-prosecution policy (Jan 2020, blue dash), the NYS COVID PAUSE order (Mar 2020, red dot), and the Manhattan non-prosecution policy (Jan 2022, green dash).

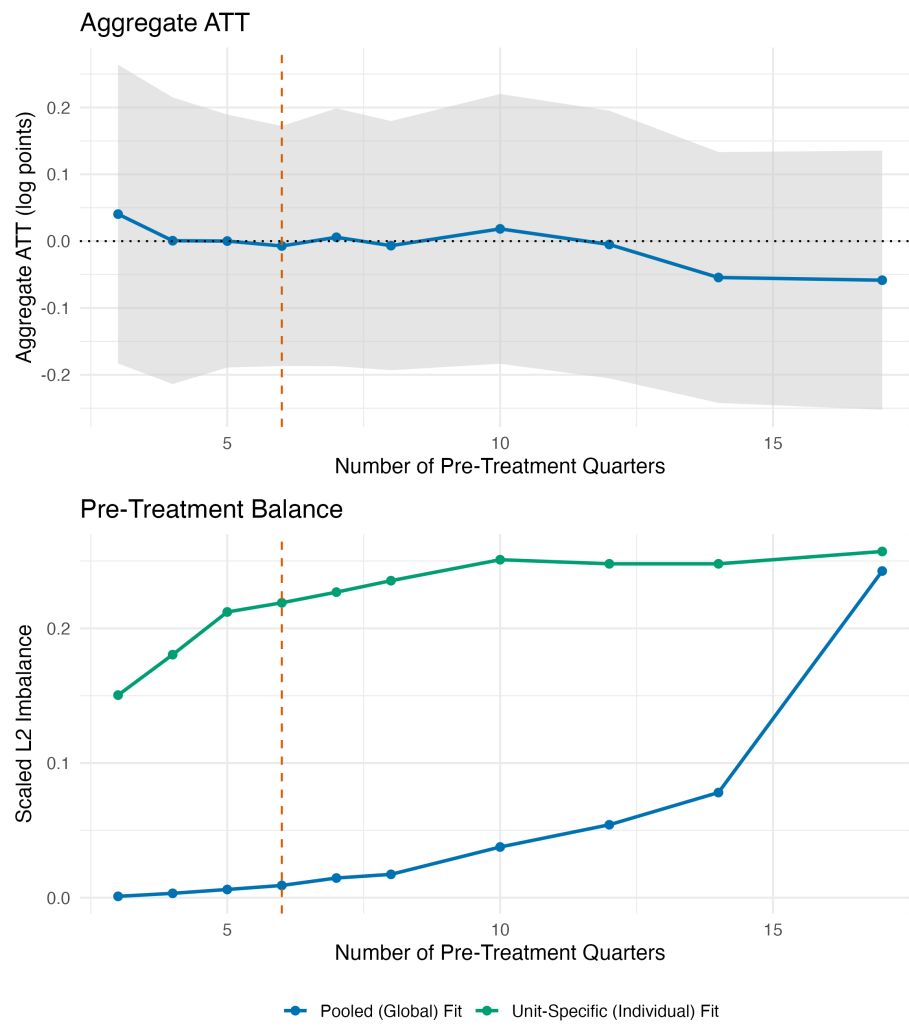


Figure A4: Sensitivity of Results to Number of Pre-Treatment Lags

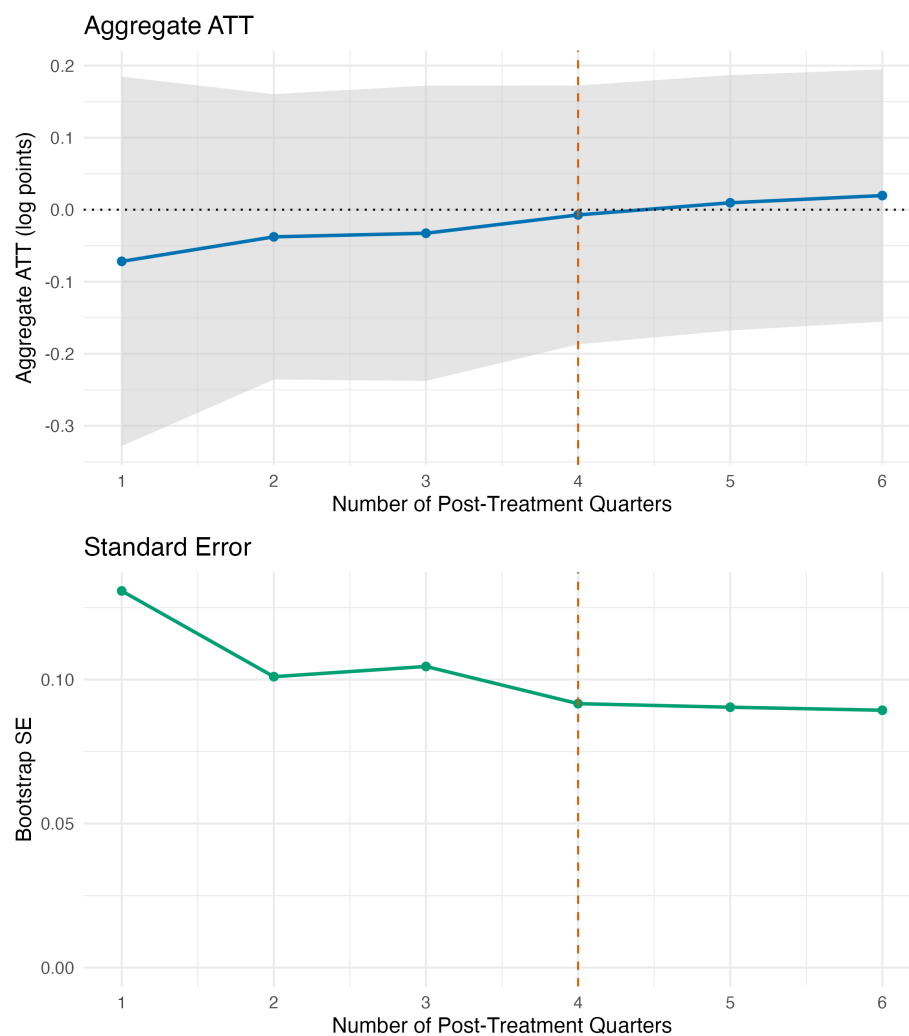


Figure A5: Sensitivity of Results to Number of Post-Treatment Quarters

Note: Each point refits the shared targets model averaging the ATT over the indicated number of post-treatment quarters. The shaded band is a 95% confidence interval from bootstrap standard errors. The dashed vertical line marks the main specification (four quarters).